

Recall our setup of a probabilistic experiment as a procedure of drawing a sample from a 集合 of possible values, and assigning a probability for each possible outcome of the experiment. For example, 如果 we toss a

fair coin n times, then there are 2^n possible outcomes, each of which is equally likely and has probability $1/2^n$.

Now 假设 we want to make a measurement in our experiment. 对于例子, we can ask what is the number of heads in n coin tosses; call this number X . Of course, X is 非 a fixed number, 但是 it depends on the actual 序列 of coin flips that 我们得到. 对于例子, 如果 $n = 4$ 和 we observe the 结果 $\omega = HTHH$, 那么 $X = 3$; whereas 如果 we observe the 结果 $\omega = HTHT$, 那么 $X = 2$. In this 例子

of n coin tosses, we only know that X is an 整数 between 0 和 n , 但是 we do 非 know what its exact value is 直到 we observe 其中 结果 of n coin flips is realized 和 count how many heads 存在.

Because every possible 结果 is assigned a 概率, the value X also carries with it a 概率 对于

each possible value it can take. The 表 below lists all the possible values X can take in the 例子 of

$n=4$ coin tosses, along with their respective probabilities. outcomes ω value of X (#heads) probability of occurring

TTTT 0 $1/16$

HTTT, THTT, TTHT, TTHH 1 $4/16$

HHHT, HHTT, HTHT, THHT, THTH, TTHH 2 $6/16$

HHHT, HHHT, HTHH, THHH 3 $4/16$

HHHH 4 $1/16$

Such a value X that depends on the 结果 of the probabilistic experiment is called a random 变量

(abbreviated r.v.). As we see from the 例子 above, a random 变量

X typically does 非 have a definitive value, 但是 instead only has a 概率 分布 over the 集合 of possible values X can take,

其中 is why it is called random. 所以 the 问题 “What is the number of heads in n coin tosses?” does

非 exactly make sense because the 答案 X is a random 变量. 但是 the 问题 “What is the typical

number of heads in n coin tosses?”

makes sense—it is asking what is the average value of X (the number of heads) 如果 we repeat the experiment of tossing n coins multiple times. This average value is called the

expectation of X , and is one of the most useful summaries (also called statistics) of an experiment.

1 Random Variables

Before we formalize the above notions, 令 us 考虑 another 例子 to enforce our conceptual understanding of a random variable.

例子: Fixed Points of Permutations

问题:

Suppose we collect the homeworks of n students, randomly shuffle them, and return them to the

students. How many students receive their own homework?
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Here the probability space consists of all $n!$ permutations of the homeworks, each with equal probability $1/n!$.

If we label the homeworks as $1, 2, \dots, n$, then each sample point is a permutation $\pi = (\pi_1, \dots, \pi_n)$ where π_i is the homework returned to the i th student. We call i a fixed point of π if $\pi_i = i$, i.e., if student i receives their own homework.

As in the coin flipping case above, our problem does not have a simple numerical answer (such as 4),

because the number depends on the particular permutation we choose (i.e., on the sample point).

Let us call the number of fixed points X , which is a random variable taking values in the set $\{0, 1, 2, \dots, n\}$. (Actually

n is not possible: why?)

Formal Definition of a Random Variable
 We now formalize the concepts discussed above.

Definition 16.1 (Random Variable). A random variable X on a sample space Ω is a function $X: \Omega \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ that assigns to each sample point $\omega \in \Omega$ a real number $X(\omega)$.

Until further notice, we will restrict our attention to random variables that are discrete, i.e., they take values in a range that is finite or countably infinite.

This means even though we define X to map Ω to $\mathbb{R}$, the actual set of values $\{X(\omega) : \omega \in \Omega\}$ that X takes is a discrete subset of $\mathbb{R}$.

A random variable can be visualized in general by the picture in Figure 1.1.

Note that the term “random variable” is really something of a misnomer: it is a function, so there is nothing random about it and it is definitely not a variable!

What is random is which sample point of the experiment is realized and hence the value that the random variable maps the sample point to.

Random variable

X

Sample

Space Ω

$\mathbb{R}$

$X = \# \text{ of fixed points}$

3

123 231

R

132 312

0 1 2 3

213 321

Sample space of

all permutations

Figure 1:

Visualization of how a random variable is defined on the sample space.

练习. By completing the lower picture in 图 1, 证明 that the only possible values 对于 the r.v. X

3
are 0, 1 and 3, and that their probabilities are $\frac{1}{3}$, $\frac{1}{3}$ 和 $\frac{1}{3}$, respectively.
3 2 6

1 The figures in this note are inspired by figures in Chapter 2 of Introduction to Probability by D. Bertsekas and J. Tsitsiklis. CS70, Spring 2026, Note 16 2

2 概率 分布

When we introduced the basic probability space in an earlier note, we defined two things:

1. The sample space consisting of all the possible outcomes (sample points) of the experiment.
2. The probability of each of the sample points.

Analogously, there are two important things about any random variable:

1. The set of values that it can take.
2. The probabilities with which it takes on the values.

因为 a random 变量 is defined on a 概率 space, we can calculate these probabilities 给定 the probabilities of the sample points.

Let a be any number in the range of a random variable X . Then the set

$\{\omega \in \Omega : X(\omega) = a\}$

is an 事件 in the 样本空间 (because it is a 子集 of Ω). We usually abbreviate this 事件 to simply

" $X = a$ ". 因为 $X = a$ is an 事件, we can talk about its 概率, $P[X = a]$. The collection of these

probabilities, for all possible values of a , is known as the distribution of the random variable X .

定义 16.2 (分布). The 分布 of a 离散的 random 变量 X is the collection of values

$\{(a, P[X = a]) : a \in A\}$, where A

is the set of all possible values taken by X .

因此, the distribution of the random variable X in our permutation example above is:

1 1 1

$P[X = 0] = \frac{1}{3}$; $P[X = 1] = \frac{1}{3}$; $P[X = 3] = \frac{1}{3}$.

3 2 6

If needed, we may also write $P[X = a] = 0$ for all other values of a .

The 分布 of a random 变量 can be visualized as a bar diagram, shown in 图 2. The x-axis

represents the values that the random variable can assume.

The height of the bar at a value a is the probability

$P[X = a]$. Each of these probabilities can be computed by looking at the 概率 of the corresponding event in the sample space.

Note that the collection of events $X = a$

$= a$, for $a \in A$, satisfy two important properties:

- Any two events $X = a$ and $X = a'$ with $a \neq a'$ are disjoint.

1 2 1 2

- The union of all these events is equal to the entire sample space Ω .

The collection of events 因此 form a 划分 of the 样本空间 (see 图 2).

Both properties follow

directly from the fact that X is a 函数 defined on Ω , i.e., X assigns a unique value to each 和 every

possible sample point in Ω . 所以, when we sum up the probabilities of the events $X = a$, we are really

summing up the probabilities of all the sample points, giving us a total of exactly 1.

$P[X = a]$

$X = a$

1

$X = a$

2

$X = a$

3

a a a

1 2 3

$P[X = a]$

1

123 231 2

1

132 312 3

1

6

213 321

0 1 2 3

Figure2:

Visualization of how the distribution of a random variable is defined.

Bernoulli Distribution

A simple yet very useful 概率分布 is the Bernoulli 分布 of a random 变量 其中

takes value in $\{0, 1\}$:

(cid:40)

p , if $i=1$,

$P[X = i] =$

$1 - p$, if $i=0$,

where $0 \leq p \leq 1$. We say that X

is distributed as a Bernoulli random variable with parameter

p , and write

$X \sim \text{Bernoulli}(p)$ 或 $X \sim \text{Ber}(p)$.

Binomial Distribution

Let us return to our coin tossing example above, where we defined our random variable X to be the number

of heads. More formally, 考虑 the random experiment consisting of n 独立的 tosses of a biased

coin that shows H with probability p . Each sample point ω

is a sequence of tosses, and $X(\omega)$ is defined to

be the number of heads in ω . For example, when $n=3$, $X(\text{THH})=2$.

To 计算 the 分布 of X , we first enumerate the possible values

that X can take. They are simply

$0, 1, \dots, n$. 那么 we 计算 the 概率 of each 事件 $X = i$ 对于 $i=0, 1, \dots, n$.

The 概率 of the

事件 $X = i$ is the sum of the probabilities of all the sample

points with exactly i heads (对于 例子, 如果

$n=3$ and $i=2$, there would be three such sample points $\{\text{HHT}, \text{HTH}, \text{THH}\}$).

Any such sample point has

概率 $p^i (1-p)^{n-i}$, since the coin flips are independent.

There are exactly $\binom{n}{i}$ of these sample points.

i

因此,

$\binom{n}{i} p^i (1-p)^{n-i}$

n

$P[X = i] = \binom{n}{i} p^i (1-p)^{n-i}$, for $i=0, 1, \dots, n$. (1)

i

This 分布, called the 二项的 分布, is one of the most important distributions in 概率.

A random variable with this distribution is called a binomial random variable, and we write

$X \sim \text{Bin}(n, p)$,

where n denotes the number of trials and

p the probability of success (observing an H in the example). An

例子 of a 二项的 分布 is shown in 图 3. Notice that due to the properties of X mentioned

above, it must be the case that $\sum_{i=0}^n P[X=i] = 1$, which implies that $\sum_{i=0}^n$

$\binom{n}{i} p^i (1-p)^{n-i} = 1$. This provides

$\sum_{i=0}^n \binom{n}{i} p^i (1-p)^{n-i} = 1$

a probabilistic 证明 of the 二项的 定理 from an earlier 笔记 其中 we saw it combinatorially, 对于

$a = p$ and $b = 1 - p$.

$P[X=a] = P[X=a]$

Binomial distribution Binomial distribution

$n=9, p=1/2$ large, p small

2

a a

1 2 3 4 5 6 7 8 9 n

Figure 3: The binomial distributions for two choices of (n, p) .

Although we define the binomial distribution in terms of an experiment involving tossing coins, this distribution is useful for modeling many real-world problems.

Consider for example the error correction problem

studied earlier. 回忆 we wanted to encode n packets into $n+k$

packets 满足 the recipient can

reconstruct the original n packets from any n packets received.

But in practice, the number of packet losses

is random, 所以 how do we choose k , the amount of redundancy?

如果 we model each packet getting lost with

概率 p and the losses are 独立的, 那么 如果 we transmit $n+k$ packets,

the number of packets re-

ceived is a random variable X with binomial distribution: $X \sim$

$\text{Bin}(n+k, 1-p)$ (we are tossing a coin $n+k$

times, and each coin turns out to be a head (packet received)

with 概率 $1-p$). 所以 the 概率 of

successfully decoding the original data is:

$\sum_{i=n}^{n+k} \binom{n+k}{i} (1-p)^i p^{n+k-i}$

$P[X \geq n] = \sum_{i=n}^{n+k} P[X=i] = \sum_{i=n}^{n+k} \binom{n+k}{i} (1-p)^i p^{n+k-i}$

i

$i=n$ $i=n$

Given fixed n and

p , we can choose k such that this probability is no less than, say, 0.99.

Hypergeometric Distribution

考虑 an urn containing $N = B+W$ balls, 其中 B balls are black and W are white. 假设 you

randomly sample $n \leq N$ balls from the urn with replacement, 和 令

X 表示 the number of black balls

in your sample. What is the 概率 分布 of X ? 因为 the 概率 of seeing a black ball is

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B/N 对于 each draw, independently of all other draws, X

follows the 二项的 分布 $\text{Bin}(n, p)$, 其中

$p = B/N$.

What 如果 you randomly sample $n \leq N$ balls from the urn without replacement? In this case, the 概率

of seeing a black ball in the i th draw depends on the colors

in the case of sampling with replacement, the draws are not independent.

The probability distribution of the

number Y of black balls in this setting can be found as follows.

Consider a sequence ω

of n draws where the first k balls are black and the next $n - k$ balls are white.

那么,

using the Product Rule from Note 14, the probability of this particular sequence of draws can be computed

as

$(\text{cid:0})B(\text{cid:1}) \dots (\text{cid:0})W \dots (\text{cid:1})$

$B \dots B \quad 1 \quad B \quad k+1 \quad W \quad W \quad 1 \quad W \quad (n-k)+1 \quad 1$

$P[\omega] = \frac{k! (n-k)!}{n!} = \frac{k! (n-k)!}{n!} \quad (2)$

$N \quad N \quad 1 \quad N \quad k+1 \quad N \quad k \quad N \quad k \quad 1 \quad N \quad n+1$

$(\text{cid:0})N(\text{cid:1}) \dots (\text{cid:0})n(\text{cid:1})$

$n \quad k$

此外, any other sequence ω' consisting of k black balls and $n - k$

white balls has exactly the same

probability as ω :

if we carry out a similar calculation as in (2) for the sequence of draws in ω' , then the numerators

appearing in $P[\omega']$ will be some permutation of the numerators in the first line of (2), while the denominators

will be exactly the same as in (2). 因为 存在

$(\text{cid:0})n(\text{cid:1})$

distinct sequences of length n consisting of k black

k

balls and $n - k$ white balls, we obtain

$(\text{cid:18}) \quad (\text{cid:19}) \quad (\text{cid:0})B(\text{cid:1}) \dots (\text{cid:0})N \quad B(\text{cid:1})$

n

$P[Y = k] = P[\omega] = \frac{k! (n-k)!}{n!}, \quad (3)$

k

$(\text{cid:0})N(\text{cid:1})$

n

for $k \in \{0, 1, \dots, n\}$. (Note that $(\text{cid:0})m(\text{cid:1}) = 0$ if $j > m$, so $P[Y$

$= k] = 0$ only if $\max(0, n + B - N) \leq k \leq \min(n, B)$.)

j

This probability distribution is called the hypergeometric distribution with parameters N, B, n , and we write

$Y \sim \text{Hypergeometric}(N, B, n)$.

3 Multiple Random Variables, Independence, 和 Exchangeability

Often one is interested in multiple random variables on the

same 样本空间. 考虑, 对于 例子,

the 样本空间 of flipping three coins. One could 定义 many random

variables: 对于 例子 a random

variable X indicating the number of heads, or a random variable Y

indicating the number of tails, or a binary

random variable Z indicating whether the first toss is H or not.

Note that for each sample point, any random

variable has a specific value: e.g., for ω

$= \text{HTT}$, we have $X(\omega) = 1, Y(\omega) = 2$, and $Z(\omega) = 1$.

The concept of a distribution can then be extended to probabilities for the combination of values for multiple random variables.

Definition 16.3.

The joint distribution of two discrete random variables X and Y

is the collection of values

$\{(a, b), P[X = a, Y = b]\} : a \in A, b \in B\}$, 其中 A is the 集合 of all

possible values taken by X and B is

the set of all possible values taken by Y .
 Given a joint distribution of X and Y , the distribution $P[X=a]$ of X is called the marginal distribution of X , and can be found by summing over the values of Y . That is,
 $P[X=a] = \sum_{b \in B} P[X=a, Y=b]$.
 $b \in B$
 The marginal distribution of Y is defined analogously.
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A joint distribution over any set of random variables $X_1, \dots, X_n$ (for example, X_i could be the value of the i th roll of a sequence of n die rolls) is $P[X_1=a_1, \dots, X_n=a_n]$, where $a_i \in A_i$ and A_i is the set of possible values for X_i . The marginal distribution of X_i can be obtained by summing over all the possible values of the other variables.
 Independence

Independence for random variables is defined in an analogous fashion to independence for events:
 定义 16.4 (Independence). Random variables X 和 Y on the same 概率 space are said to be 独立的 if the events $X=a$ 和 $Y=b$ are 独立的 for all values a, b .
 Equivalently, the joint distribution of independent r.v.'s decomposes as
 $P[X=a, Y=b] = P[X=a]P[Y=b]$, a, b .
 Mutual independence of more than two r.v.'s is defined similarly.

A very important example of independent random variables are indicator random variables for independent events. 如果 I_i denotes the indicator r.v. for the i th toss of a coin being H, then $I_1, \dots, I_n$ are mutually independent random variables.
 This example motivates the commonly used phrase “independent and identically distributed (i.i.d.) 集合 of random variables.” In this 例子, $\{I_1, \dots, I_n\}$ is a 集合 of i.i.d. indicator random variables.
 Exchangeability

假设 we randomly sample without replacement $n \leq N$ balls from an urn containing B black balls and $N-B$ white balls. We showed earlier that the number Y of black balls in the sample follows the Hypergeometric (N, B, n) 分布. Note that we can write
 $Y = I_1 + \dots + I_n$,
 where I_i is the indicator random variable that equals 1 if the i th draw is black and 0 otherwise.
 By the argument used to derive (2), we have (here $\sum_{i=1}^n a_i$ plays the role of $\sum_{i=1}^n a_i$):
 $P[I_1=a_1, \dots, I_n=a_n] = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n a_i}{N} \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n a_i - 1}{N-1} \dots \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n a_i - n + 1}{N - n + 1}$ (4)
 $\sum_{i=1}^n a_i = Y$

$i=1$
 a_i
 An important feature of (4) is that the right-hand side depends on $(a_1, \dots, a_n)$ only through their sum $\sum_{i=1}^n a_i$.

In particular, the joint distribution is invariant under permutations of the indices. That is, for any permutation

π of $\{1, \dots, n\}$,
 $P[I_1 = a_1, \dots, I_n = a_n] = P[I_{\pi(1)} = a_1, \dots, I_{\pi(n)} = a_n]$ (5)
 for all $a_1, \dots, a_n \in \{0, 1\}$.

$1 \leq n$
 Random variables satisfying (5) are called exchangeable.
 定义 16.5 (Exchangeability). A collection of random variables $X_1, \dots, X_n$ with common value domain A is

$1 \leq n$
 said to be exchangeable if $(X_1, \dots, X_n)$ has the same joint distribution as $(X_{\pi(1)}, \dots, X_{\pi(n)})$ for every permutation π of $\{1, \dots, n\}$.
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因此, $I_1, \dots, I_n$ are exchangeable random variables.

$1 \leq n$
 We now record several consequences of exchangeability.
 1. Identical marginals. The random variables $X_1, \dots, X_n$ have identical marginal distributions:

$1 \leq n$
 $P[X_1 = a] = P[X_2 = a] = \dots = P[X_n = a]$ (6)

$1 \leq i \leq n$
 for all $a \in A$.
 This follows because, for any i and any $a \in A$,
 $P[X_i = a] = \sum_{b_1, \dots, b_{i-1}, b_{i+1}, \dots, b_n \in A} P[X_1 = b_1, \dots, X_{i-1} = b_{i-1}, X_i = a, X_{i+1} = b_{i+1}, \dots, X_n = b_n]$
 $= \sum_{b_1, \dots, b_{i-1}, b_{i+1}, \dots, b_n \in A} P[X_1 = b_1, \dots, X_{i-1} = b_{i-1}, X_i = b_i, X_{i+1} = b_{i+1}, \dots, X_n = b_n]$
 $= P[X_i = a]$,

$1 \leq i \leq n$
 where we used exchangeability in the second step.
 Although the X_i have identical distributions, they are generally not independent.
 In fact, i. i. d. 蕴含

$i \leq j$
 exchangeability, but the converse need not hold.
 2. Identical pairwise distributions. For any distinct i, j ,
 $P[X_i = a, X_j = b] = P[X_j = a, X_i = b]$ (7)

$i, j \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$
 for all $a, b \in A$.
 The proof follows by summing over the remaining variables and applying exchangeability.
 3. Identical k -tuple distributions. More generally, for any distinct indices $i_1, \dots, i_k$, where $k \leq n$, the

joint distribution of $(X_1, \dots, X_k)$ is the same as that of $(X_1, \dots, X_k)$.
 The proof is similar to the previous case.
 4 期望
 The distribution of a r.v. contains all the information about the r.v.
 In most applications, however, the complete distribution of a r.v. is very hard to calculate. For example, consider the permutation example with $n=20$. In principle, we would have to enumerate $20! \approx 2.4 \times 10^{18}$ sample points, calculate the value of X at each one, and count the number of points at which X takes on each of its possible values (though in practice we could streamline this calculation a bit)! Additionally, even when we can calculate the complete distribution of a r.v., it is often not very informative. For these reasons, we seek to summarize the distribution into a more compact, convenient form that is also easy to compute.
 The most widely used such form is the expectation (or mean or average) of the r.v.
 Definition 16.6 (期望). The expectation of a discrete random variable X is defined as

$$E[X] = \sum_{a \in A} a \times P[X=a], \quad (8)$$
 where the sum is over all possible values taken by the r.v.
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Technical Note.
 Expectation is well defined provided that the sum on the right hand side of (8) is absolutely convergent, i.e., $\sum_{a \in A} |a| \times P[X=a] < \infty$. Existence of expectations for discrete random variables does not always exist, such as the r.v. X with distribution $P[X=i] = \frac{1}{2^i}$ for all positive integers i . (The reason for this is that the series $\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} i \times \frac{1}{2^i}$ diverges.)

For our simpler permutation example with only 3 students, the expectation is

$$E[X] = 0 \times \frac{1}{6} + 1 \times \frac{2}{6} + 2 \times \frac{2}{6} + 3 \times \frac{1}{6} = 1.$$

That is, the expected number of fixed points in a permutation of three items is exactly 1. The expectation can be seen in some sense as a “typical” value of the r.v. (though note that $E[X]$ may not actually be a value that X can take). The question of how typical the expectation is for a given r.v. is a very important one that we shall return to in a later lecture. Here is a physical interpretation of the expectation of a random variable: imagine carving out a wooden cutout figure of the probability distribution as in Figure 4. Then the expected value of the distribution is the balance point (directly below the center of gravity) of this object.
 Figure 4:
 Physical interpretation of expected value as the balance point.

4.1 Examples

1. Single die. Throw a fair die once and let X be the number that comes up. Then X takes on values

1, 2, ..., 6 each with probability $\frac{1}{6}$, 所以

6

1 21 7

$E[X] = \frac{1+2+3+4+5+6}{6} = \frac{21}{6} = 3.5$.

6 6 2

Note that X never actually takes on its expected value 7.

2

2. Two dice. Throw two fair dice and let X be the sum of their scores.

Then the distribution of X is

a 2 3 4 5 6 7 8 9 10 11 12

$P[X=a]$ 1 1 1 1 5 1 5 1 1 1 1

36 18 12 9 36 6 36 9 12 18 36

The expectation is therefore

(cid:18) (cid:19) (cid:18) (cid:19) (cid:18) (cid:19)

(cid:18) (cid:19)

1 1 1 1

$E[X] = 2 \times \frac{1}{36} + 3 \times \frac{1}{18} + 4 \times \frac{1}{12} + \dots + 12 \times \frac{1}{36} = 7$.

36 18 12 36

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3. Roulette.

A roulette wheel is spun (recall that a roulette wheel has 38 slots:

the numbers 1, 2, ..., 36,

half of which are red and half black, plus 0 and 00, which are green).

You bet \$1 on Black. If a black

number comes up, you receive your stake plus \$1; otherwise

you lose your stake. 令 X be your net

winnings in one game. Then X

can take on the values $+1$ and -1 , and $P[X=1] = \frac{18}{38}$, $P[X=-1] = \frac{20}{38}$.

38 38

因此,

(cid:18) (cid:19) (cid:18) (cid:19)

18 20 1

$E[X] = 1 \times \frac{18}{38} + (-1) \times \frac{20}{38} = -\frac{2}{38}$;

38 38 19

i.e., you expect to lose about a nickel per game. Notice how the zeros tip the balance in favor of the casino!

4.2 Linearity of 期望

So far, we have computed expectations by brute force:

i.e., we have written down the whole distribution and

那么 added up the contributions 对所有 possible values of the

r.v. The 实数 power of expectations is that in

many 实数-life examples they can be computed much more easily using a simple shortcut. The shortcut is

the following:

Theorem 16.1. For any two random variables X and Y

on the same probability space, we have

$E[X+Y] = E[X] + E[Y]$.

Also, for any constant c , we have

$E[cX] = cE[X]$.

证明.

We first rewrite the definition of expectation in a more convenient form.

Recall from Definition 16.6

that

$E[X] = \sum_{a \in A} a \times P[X=a]$.

$a \in A$

考虑 a particular term $a \times P[X=a]$ in the above sum. Notice that

$P[X=a]$, by 定义, is the sum

of $P[\omega]$ over those sample points ω 对于 其中 $X(\omega)=a$. 此外, we know

that every sample point

$\omega \in \Omega$ is exactly one of these events $X = a$.
 This means we can write out the above definition in a more
 long-winded form as

$$E[X] = \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} X(\omega) \times P[\omega]. \quad (9)$$

This 等价 定义 of 期望 will make the present 证明 much easier
 (though it is usually less
 convenient for actual calculations). Applying (9) to $E[X+Y]$ gives:

$$\begin{aligned} E[X+Y] &= \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} (X+Y)(\omega) \times P[\omega] \\ &= \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} (X(\omega) + Y(\omega)) \times P[\omega] \\ &= \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} (X(\omega) \times P[\omega]) + \sum_{\omega \in \Omega} (Y(\omega) \times P[\omega]) \\ &= E[X] + E[Y] \end{aligned}$$

In the last step, we used (9) twice.
 This completes the 证明 of the first equality. The 证明 of the
 second equality is much simpler 和 is left
 as an exercise.
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定理 16.1 is very powerful: it says that the 期望 of a sum of
 r.v.'s is the sum of their expecta-

tions, with no assumptions about the r.v.'s.
 We can use Theorem 16.1 to conclude things like $E[3X - 5Y] =$
 $3E[X] - 5E[Y]$, regardless of whether or not X and Y are independent.

This important property is known as
 linearity of expectation.

Important caveat: 定理 16.1 does 非 say that $E[XY] = E[X]E[Y]$,
 或 that $E(\text{cid:2})1(\text{cid:3}) = 1$, etc. These
 $X E[X]$

claims are 非 真 in general. It is only sums 和 differences 和
 常数 multiples of random variables
 that behave so nicely.

4.3 Applications of Linearity of 期望

Now let us see some examples of Theorem 16.1 in action.

1. Two dice again.

Here is a much less painful way of computing $E[X]$, where X
 is the sum of the scores

of the two dice. 笔记 that $X = Y_1 + Y_2$, where Y_i is the score on
 die i . We know from 例子 1 in

1 2 i

Section 4.1 that $E[Y_i] = E[Y_j] = 7$.

所以, by Theorem 16.1, we have $E[X] = E[Y_1] + E[Y_2] = 7$.

1 2 2 1 2

2. More roulette. 假设 we play the roulette game mentioned in 节 4.1 $n \geq 1$ times. 令 X

n

be our expected net winnings. 那么 $X = Y_1 + Y_2 + \dots + Y_n$, 其中 Y_i is
 our net winnings in the

n 1 2 n i

ith play. We know from earlier that $E[Y_i] = -1$ 对于 each i . 因此,
 by 定理 16.1, $E[X] =$

i 1 9 n

$E[Y_1] + E[Y_2] + \dots + E[Y_n] = -n$. For $n = 1000$, $E[X] = -1000 \approx -53$,
 so if you play 1000 games,

1 2 n 1 9 n 1 9

you expect to lose about \$53.

3. Fixed points of permutations.

Let us return to the homework permutation example with an arbitrary

number n of students. 令 X 表示 the number of students who receive their own 作业 after

n
shuffling (或 equivalently, the number of fixed points). To take advantage of 定理 16.1, we need to write X as a sum of simpler r.v.'s. Since X counts the number of times something happens, we can

n n
write it as a sum using the following useful trick:
(cid:40)

1, if student i gets their own homework,
 $X = I_1 + I_2 + \dots + I_n$, where $I_i =$ (10)

n 1 2 n i

0, otherwise.

[You should think about this equation for a moment.

Remember that all the I_i 's are random variables.

i

What does an 方程 involving random variables mean? What we mean is that, at every sample

point ω , we have $X(\omega) = I_1(\omega) + I_2(\omega) + \dots + I_n(\omega)$. Why is this true?]

n 1 2 n

A Bernoulli random 变量 such as I_i is called an indicator random 变量 of the corresponding

i

事件 (in this case, the event that student i gets their own homework).

For indicator r.v.'s, the expectation is particularly easy to calculate. Specifically,

$E[I_i] = (0 \times P[I_i = 0]) + (1 \times P[I_i = 1]) = P[I_i = 1]$.

i i i i

In our case, we have

1

$P[I_i = 1] = P[\text{student } i \text{ gets their own homework}] =$.

i

n

We can now apply Theorem 16.1 to (10), yielding

1

$E[X] = E[I_1] + E[I_2] + \dots + E[I_n] = n \times \frac{1}{n} = 1$.

n 1 2 n

n

所以, we see that the expected number of students who get their own homeworks in a class of size n

is 1. 即, the expected number of fixed points in a random permutation of n items is always 1,

regardless of n !

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4. Coin tosses. Toss a fair coin $n \geq 1$ times. Let the r.v. X be the number of heads observed. As in the

n

previous example, to take advantage of Theorem 16.1 we write

$X = I_1 + I_2 + \dots + I_n$,

n 1 2 n

where I_i is the indicator r.v. of the event that the i th toss is H.

Since the coin is fair, we have

i

1

$E[I_i] = P[I_i = 1] = P[\text{ith toss is H}] = \frac{1}{2}$.

i i

2

Using Theorem 16.1, we therefore get

$$E[X] = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{1}{2^i} = 1.$$

n
 2^2
 $i=1$

More generally, in n tosses of a biased coin that comes up H with probability p , $E[X] = np$. (Check

n
 this!) 所以 the 期望 of a 二项的 r.v. $X \sim \text{Bin}(n, p)$ is equal to np .
 笔记 that it would have
 been much messier (though possible) to reach the same 结论 by
 computing this directly from

the definition of expectation in (8) and the distribution of a binomial r.v. in (1).

5. Sampling without replacement. 考虑 sampling without

replacement $n \leq N$ balls from an urn

containing B black balls and $N - B$ white balls. Let Y

denote the number of black balls in the sample.

We know that Y follows the Hypergeometric (N, B, n) 分布.

然而, computing $E[Y]$ directly

from the 分布 (see (3)) can be cumbersome. A much simpler

approach is to use indicator

random variables. Write

$$Y = I_1 + \dots + I_n,$$

$1 \leq i \leq n$

其中 I_i is the indicator that the i th draw is black. 虽然 the
 random variables $I_1, \dots, I_n$ are 非

$i = 1, \dots, n$

独立的, linearity of expectation still applies:

$$E[Y] = E[I_1] + \dots + E[I_n].$$

$1 \leq i \leq n$

此外, by exchangeability, the I_i have identical distributions, 所以

$$E[Y] = n E[I_1].$$

$1 \leq i \leq n$

Finally, since the probability that the first draw is black is $P[I_1 = 1] =$

B/N , we conclude that

$1 \leq i \leq n$

B

$$E[Y] = n \frac{B}{N}.$$

N

6. Balls and bins. Throw m balls into n bins. Let the r.v. X_i

be the number of balls that land in the first

bin. 那么 X_i behaves exactly like the number of heads in m

tosses of a biased coin with $P[H] = 1/2$

n

(why?). 所以, from the previous 例子, we get $E[X_i] = m/2$. In the
 special case $m=n$, the expected

n

number of balls in any bin is 1 .

If we wanted to compute this directly from the distribution of X_i , we

would get into a messy calculation involving binomial coefficients.

Here is another 例子 on the same 样本空间. 令 the r.v. Y be the
 number of empty bins.

n

The 分布 of Y is horrible to contemplate: to get a feel 对于
 this, you might like to write it

n

down 对于 $m=n=3$ (i.e., 3 balls, 3 bins). 然而, computing the 期望 $E[Y]$ is easy using

n
Theorem 16.1. As in the previous two examples, we write
 $Y = I_1 + I_2 + \dots + I_n$, (11)
 $n \quad 1 \quad 2 \quad n$
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where I_i is the indicator r.v. of the event “bin i is empty”.
The expectation of I_i is easy to find:

$i \quad i$
(cid:18) (cid:19) m
 1
 $E[I_i] = P[I_i = 1] = P[\text{bin } i \text{ is empty}] = \left(\frac{m-1}{m}\right)^n$,
 $i \quad i$

n
as discussed earlier.
Applying Theorem 16.1 to (11), we therefore obtain

$n \quad (cid:18) \quad 1 \quad (cid:19) \quad m$
 $E[Y] = \sum_{i=1}^n E[I_i] = n \left(\frac{m-1}{m}\right)^n$,
 $n \quad i$
 n
 $i=1$

a simple formula, quite easily derived. 令 us see how it
behaves in the special case $m=n$ (same
number of balls as bins). In this case we get $E[Y] = n \left(\frac{n-1}{n}\right)^n$.
(cid:0) 1 1 (cid:1) n . Now the quantity (cid:0) 1 1 (cid:1) n
can be

$n \quad n \quad n$
approximated (for large enough values of n) by the number 1.2
So we see that, for large n ,
 e
 n
 $E[Y] \approx \frac{n}{e} \approx 0.368n$.
 n
 e

The bottom line is that, 如果 we throw (say) 1000 balls into
1000 bins, the expected number of empty
bins is about 368.

2 More generally, it is a standard fact that for any constant c ,
 $(1+c)^n \rightarrow \infty$ as $n \rightarrow \infty$.

n
We just used this fact in the special case $c = -1$.
The approximation is actually very good even for quite small values of n .
(Try it
yourself!)

E.g., for $n=20$ we already get $(1-1/n)^n \approx 0.358$, which is very close to $1/e \approx 0.368$. The approximation gets better and

$n \quad e$
better for larger n .
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